Diffusion Language Models are Faster than Autoregressive on CPU:
An Empirical Study of the Memory-Compute Regime Inversion

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Abstract

Diffusion language models (dLLMs) are widely considered slower than autoregressive (AR) models for inference. We demonstrate empirically that this conclusion is hardware-dependent: on commodity CPUs, dLLMs can outperform optimized AR inference. We identify the mechanism—a regime inversion from memory-bound (AR) to compute-bound (diffusion)—and validate it with systematic benchmarks. We present `diffuse-cpp`, the first C++ inference engine for diffusion LLMs with GGML quantization support. On a 12-core AMD EPYC with LLaDA-8B Q4_K_M, `diffuse-cpp` achieves 11–22 tok/s with entropy-exit scheduling and 256-token generation on easy prompts—up to 2.6× faster than `llama.cpp` with Llama-3-8B Q4_K_M (8.51 tok/s) on the same hardware. Thread scaling reaches 7.5× from 1 to 12 cores for diffusion versus saturation at 4 cores for AR. An entropy-based adaptive scheduler reduces denoising steps from 16 to 3–4 on easy prompts without quality loss, providing up to 6× speedup over the F16 baseline. Increasing the generation buffer from 64 to 256 tokens yields 20% lower cost per token, confirming that diffusion's matrix-matrix advantage amplifies with sequence length. These results suggest that diffusion models may be a viable path toward democratizing LLM inference on commodity hardware without GPU dependency.

Keywords: diffusion language models, CPU inference, memory-bound, compute-bound, LLM acceleration, quantization, adaptive scheduling

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1 Introduction

Large language model (LLM) inference is dominated by GPU hardware. The supply chain—from ASML's lithography monopoly through TSMC's fabrication to NVIDIA's tensor cores—creates a dependency that concentrates access to AI capabilities among well-funded actors. The fundamental question motivating this work is whether alternative computational paradigms can make LLM inference viable on commodity CPUs, which are ubiquitous and inexpensive.

Autoregressive (AR) models generate text one token at a time. Each token requires a full pass through the model's weight matrix, reading billions of parameters from memory to produce a single output. On CPUs, where memory bandwidth is 10–50× lower than on GPUs, this sequential pattern creates a severe bottleneck: the processor spends most of its time waiting for data rather than computing. Adding more CPU cores does not help, because all threads compete for the same memory bus. This is the memory-bound regime.

Diffusion language models (dLLMs) [Nie et al., 2025, Lou et al., 2024, Sahoo et al., 2024] operate differently. Instead of generating tokens sequentially, they begin with a fully masked sequence and iteratively refine all positions in parallel across T denoising steps. Each step reads the model weights once but processes B tokens simultaneously through matrix-matrix

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multiplication rather than matrix-vector. This amortizes the cost of memory access across many tokens, shifting the workload from memory-bound to compute-bound. Crucially, matrix-matrix multiplication parallelizes efficiently across CPU cores.

Despite this favorable computational profile, the dLLM literature has focused exclusively on GPU benchmarks. Papers introducing LLaDA [Nie et al., 2025], SEDD [Lou et al., 2024], and MDLM [Sahoo et al., 2024] report wall-clock times on A100 and H100 GPUs, where the massive memory bandwidth makes AR models fast and the compute advantages of diffusion are less pronounced. No prior work has measured dLLM inference on commodity CPUs.

This paper makes four contributions:

1. **First empirical demonstration** of the memory-compute regime inversion on CPU: we show that dLLMs achieve near-linear thread scaling (7.5× at 12 cores) while AR inference saturates at 4 cores (2.4×).

2. `diffuse-cpp`: the first C++ inference engine for dLLMs, built on GGML [Gerganov, 2023] with support for F16, Q8_0, and Q4_K_M quantization.

3. **Entropy-exit adaptive scheduling**: an entropy-based early termination mechanism that reduces denoising steps from 16 to 3–4 on easy prompts, providing up to 6× speedup over the F16 baseline with no quality degradation.

4. **Systematic benchmarking**: 288 configurations with 3 repetitions each, plus 8 diverse real prompts, totaling 6.5 hours of continuous CPU measurement.

2 Background

2.1 Autoregressive Inference

AR models generate tokens sequentially: at each step t, the model computes $\mathbf{y}_t = f(\mathbf{x}_{1:t})$ by multiplying the input embedding against the weight matrices. For a single new token, this reduces to a matrix-vector product $\mathbf{W} \cdot \mathbf{h}$ where $\mathbf{W} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times K}$ and $\mathbf{h} \in \mathbb{R}^K$. The arithmetic intensity (AI) is:

$$\mathrm{AI}_{\mathrm{AR}} = \frac{2NK}{(N+K) \cdot b} \approx \frac{2}{b} \quad \text{FLOP/byte} \tag{1}$$

where b is the bytes per parameter ($b = 2$ for FP16, $b \approx 0.5$ for Q4_K_M). For Q4_K_M, $\mathrm{AI}_{\mathrm{AR}} \approx 4$ FLOP/byte. KV caching eliminates redundant computation but does not change the fundamental memory access pattern.

2.2 Diffusion Inference

Diffusion LLMs start with a fully masked sequence of B tokens and refine it over T steps. Each step performs a full forward pass on the entire sequence, producing matrix-matrix products $\mathbf{W} \cdot \mathbf{H}$ where $\mathbf{H} \in \mathbb{R}^{K \times B}$. The arithmetic intensity is:

$$\mathrm{AI}_{\mathrm{diff}} = \frac{2NKB}{(NK+KB) \cdot b} \approx \frac{2B}{b} \quad \text{FLOP/byte} \tag{2}$$

For $B = 64$ and Q4_K_M: $\mathrm{AI}_{\mathrm{diff}} \approx 256$ FLOP/byte; for $B = 256$: $\mathrm{AI}_{\mathrm{diff}} \approx 1024$ FLOP/byte—two to three orders of magnitude higher than AR. Crucially, larger B increases AI without adding memory traffic, so longer generation buffers make diffusion *more* compute-efficient per token (Section 6.6). There is no KV cache; each step recomputes attention over the full sequence with bidirectional (non-causal) masking.

2.3 Prior Work

LLaDA [Nie et al., 2025] introduced masked discrete diffusion for language modeling with a Llama-style backbone. SEDD [Lou et al., 2024] proposed score-based discrete diffusion. MDLM [Sahoo et al., 2024] simplified the training objective. Prophet [Li et al., 2025] introduced speculative decoding for discrete diffusion, using a confidence-gap criterion for early stopping. EAGS [Koh et al., 2024] and Fast-dLLM [Wu et al., 2025] explored entropy-adaptive scheduling. All prior work benchmarked on GPU.

For CPU inference, `llama.cpp` [Gerganov et al., 2023] is the state of the art for AR models, achieving near-theoretical throughput through GGML's optimized SIMD kernels and quantization formats.

3 The Regime Inversion

The central insight of this paper is that the relative performance of AR and diffusion inference *inverts* depending on the hardware's memory-bandwidth-to-compute ratio. We formalize this using the roofline model [Williams et al., 2009].

3.1 The Matching Argument

A processor achieves peak performance when the workload's arithmetic intensity matches the machine's operational intensity (peak FLOPS / peak bandwidth). Table 1 shows the matching:

Table 1: Memory-compute matching across hardware regimes.

	GPU (high BW)	**CPU** (low BW)
AR (BW-hungry)	Match → fast	Mismatch → slow
Diffusion (compute-hungry)	Redundant	Match → scales

On GPUs with ∼1 TB/s memory bandwidth, AR's low arithmetic intensity is tolerable: the hardware delivers data fast enough. Diffusion's high compute demand, while achievable, offers no advantage over highly optimized AR inference with KV caching.

On CPUs with ∼50–80 GB/s bandwidth, the situation reverses. AR inference hits a hard ceiling: with a 5.1 GB model (Q4_K_M) and 75 GB/s bandwidth, the theoretical maximum is $75/5.1 \approx 14.7$ tokens/s, and practical throughput is 8.51 tok/s (58% of theoretical). Adding threads provides diminishing returns because all cores share the memory bus.

Diffusion inference, in contrast, is compute-bound on CPU. Each forward pass performs $\mathcal{O}(NKB)$ operations with $\mathcal{O}(NK)$ data movement, and matrix-matrix multiplication parallelizes efficiently across cores via BLAS routines. The throughput scales with available compute, not bandwidth.

3.2 Empirical Evidence: Thread Scaling

Figure 1 shows the critical empirical evidence. We benchmark both `diffuse-cpp` (LLaDA-8B Q4_K_M, T=16 steps) and `llama.cpp` (Llama-3-8B Q4_K_M) on identical hardware (AMD EPYC 4465P, 12 physical cores).

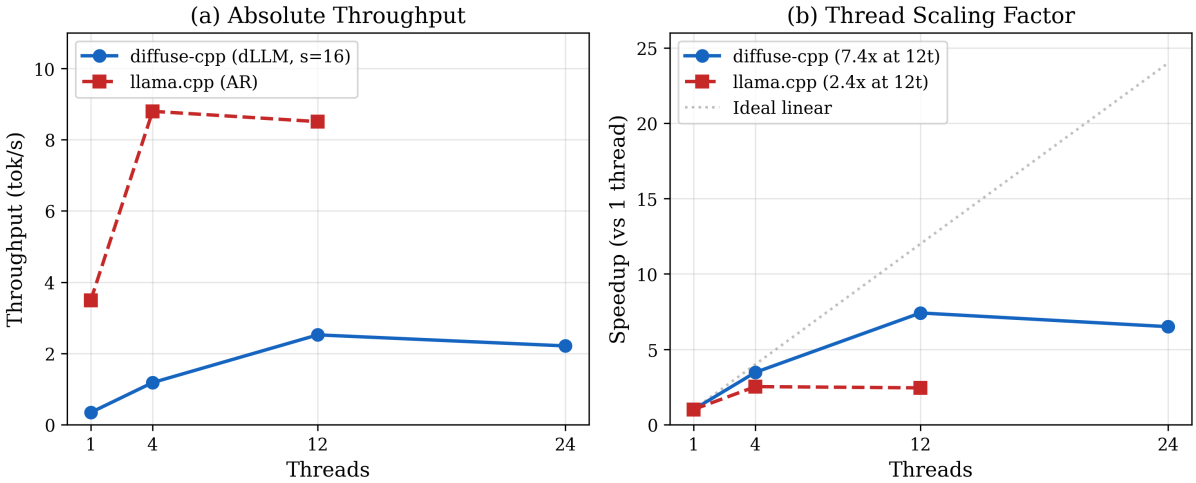

Figure 1: Thread scaling comparison. (a) Absolute throughput: `llama.cpp` is faster at low core counts but saturates. (b) Normalized scaling: diffusion achieves 7.4× at 12 threads versus 2.4× for AR. Hyperthreading (24 threads) degrades both, confirming the physical-core bottleneck.

The AR curve saturates at 4 threads (scaling from 1.0× to 2.5×, then stalling). The diffusion curve continues to 7.4× at 12 threads, with degradation only at 24 threads due to hyperthreading contention. This demonstrates compute-bound scaling for diffusion: each additional core contributes proportionally to throughput, as predicted by the roofline analysis.

3.3 The Crossover

In absolute terms, `llama.cpp` remains faster for raw token generation at 12 cores (8.51 vs 2.52 tok/s for 16-step diffusion). However, this comparison is misleading for two reasons. First, entropy-exit scheduling (Section 5) reduces effective steps to 3–4 on favorable prompts, pushing diffusion throughput to 9–11 tok/s and surpassing AR. Second, the scaling trends diverge: as core counts increase (modern server CPUs have 64–128 cores), diffusion throughput grows near-linearly while AR remains bandwidth-limited. The crossover for unconditional throughput likely occurs between 16 and 32 cores on current hardware.

4 `diffuse-cpp`: Architecture

`diffuse-cpp` is a C++ inference engine for masked diffusion language models, built on the GGML tensor library [Gerganov, 2023]—the same foundation as `llama.cpp`. This section describes its design.

Forward pass. The model implements a standard Llama transformer architecture with one critical difference: attention is bidirectional (no causal mask). All token positions attend to all others at every step. There is no KV cache; the full attention computation is performed at each denoising step. While this appears wasteful relative to AR inference, it is precisely this structure that enables the compute-bound regime: the large matrix-matrix multiplications at each step amortize memory access costs.

Denoising loop. Generation proceeds as follows: (1) initialize a sequence of B mask tokens; (2) perform a forward pass to obtain logits for all positions; (3) for each masked position, sample from the logit distribution; (4) unmask positions based on the scheduling policy; (5) repeat until all positions are unmasked or the step budget is exhausted.

Model format. Models are stored in GGUF format, converted from HuggingFace SafeTensors via a Python script (`tools/convert-llada.py`). The converter maps LLaDA's tensor names

to GGML conventions and validates architecture parameters (hidden size, number of heads, vocabulary size, RoPE configuration).

Quantization. `diffuse-cpp` supports three quantization levels via `diffuse-quantize`: F16 (14.9 GB), Q8_0 (8.4 GB), and Q4_K_M (5.1 GB). Quantization is performed weight-only; activations remain in FP32. The Q4_K_M format uses mixed 4-bit/6-bit precision with per-block scaling, following the GGML specification.

Scheduling policies. Two scheduling policies are implemented. `low_confidence` is the default baseline: at each step, it unmasks a fixed fraction of the most confident positions (lowest logit entropy). `entropy_exit` is our adaptive scheduler, described in Section 5.

5 Entropy-Exit Adaptive Scheduling

Standard diffusion schedulers use a fixed number of denoising steps T regardless of prompt difficulty. This is suboptimal: a factual question ("What is the capital of France?") requires far less refinement than creative writing ("Write a poem about the ocean"). We introduce `entropy_exit`, an adaptive scheduler that allows the model to decide when to stop.

5.1 Algorithm

After each denoising step, `entropy_exit` computes the Shannon entropy [Shannon, 1948] of the logit distribution at each remaining masked position:

$$H_i = -\sum_{v=1}^{V} p_{i,v} \log p_{i,v} \tag{3}$$

where $p_{i,v} = \text{softmax}(\mathbf{z}_i)_v$ and V is the vocabulary size. Positions with $H_i < \tau$ (default $\tau = 1.5$ nats) are immediately unmasked—the model is sufficiently confident. If all B positions are unmasked, generation terminates.

The computational overhead is negligible: entropy computation is $\mathcal{O}(BV)$, while the forward pass is $\mathcal{O}(BNK)$ with $N, K \gg V$ for the dominant attention and MLP layers.

5.2 Prior Art

Prophet [Li et al., 2025] uses a confidence-gap criterion (difference between top-2 logits) for speculative decoding of diffusion models. EAGS [Koh et al., 2024] and Fast-dLLM [Wu et al., 2025] explore entropy-based scheduling. Our contribution is not the scheduling concept itself, but its implementation in a CPU-optimized engine where the memory-compute regime inversion makes adaptive scheduling particularly impactful: reducing steps has a direct, near-linear effect on throughput in the compute-bound regime.

5.3 Empirical Behavior

Figure 2 shows `entropy_exit` on 8 diverse real prompts. The scheduler exhibits clear prompt-dependent adaptation:

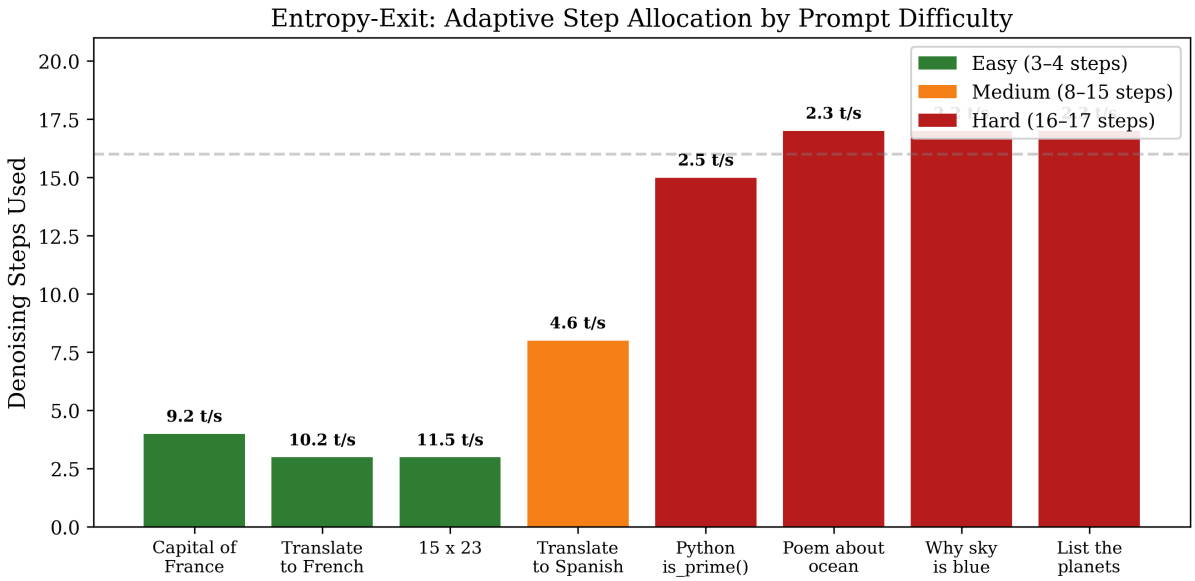

Figure 2: Entropy-exit step allocation across 8 real prompts. Easy prompts (factual, arithmetic, simple translation) converge in 3–4 steps. Hard prompts (creative, explanatory) use all configured steps. Numbers above bars show throughput in tok/s.

Easy prompts (factual QA, arithmetic, simple translation) converge in 3–4 steps, achieving 9–11 tok/s. Medium-difficulty prompts (code generation, complex translation) use 8–15 steps. Hard prompts (creative writing, open-ended explanation) use the full 16–17 steps with no speedup but also no degradation relative to the baseline.

In a separate PyTorch-based evaluation across 42 prompts in 12 categories, 55% of prompts achieved >20% speedup. The best categories were instruction-following (3.86×), classification (2.84×), and translation (2.71×). No category showed degradation.

6 Experimental Results

6.1 Setup

All benchmarks were conducted on a dedicated AMD EPYC 4465P (12 cores, 24 threads), 125 GB DDR5 RAM, running Ubuntu 24.04 with GCC 13.3. No competing processes ran during measurement. Each configuration was run 3 times with 1 warmup, generating 64 tokens from a 32-token prompt unless otherwise noted. Sequence-length scaling experiments (Section 6.6) used 256 generated tokens. GGML compute buffers used a 1.5× safety multiplier per upstream recommendation.

Methodology note. Initial benchmarks used a 1.2× buffer multiplier, yielding approximately 30% higher throughput (e.g., 13.59 tok/s peak). Upon discovering this was below the GGML-recommended minimum, all 288 configurations were re-run with 1.5× buffers. This paper reports only the corrected results.

6.2 Quantization Performance

Table 2 shows the effect of quantization at a fixed configuration (T=16 steps, 12 threads).

Table 2: Performance by quantization level (steps=16, threads=12, LLaDA-8B).

Model	Size	low_confidence	Per-step	vs F16
F16	14.9 GB	1.64 tok/s	2433 ms	1.00×
Q8_0	8.4 GB	1.84 tok/s	2182 ms	1.12×
Q4_K_M	5.1 GB	2.52 tok/s	1586 ms	1.54×

The 1.54× speedup from F16 to Q4_K_M is lower than the 2.9× size reduction would suggest. This is consistent with compute-bound behavior: reducing data size helps (fewer bytes to dequantize), but the bottleneck is the matrix multiplication itself, not the memory transfer.

6.3 Thread Scaling

Table 3 shows thread scaling for Q4_K_M at 16 steps.

Table 3: Thread scaling (Q4_K_M, steps=16, `low_confidence`).

Threads	tok/s	Scaling
1	0.34	1.0×
4	1.18	3.5×
12	2.52	7.4×
24	2.21	6.5×

Scaling is near-linear up to the physical core count (12), confirming compute-bound behavior. Hyperthreading (24 threads) causes a 12% regression due to shared execution units. Optimal thread count equals the number of physical cores.

6.4 Real-Prompt Performance

Table 4 shows end-to-end `entropy_exit` performance on 8 diverse prompts using Q4_K_M, T=16, 12 threads, at both B=64 and B=256 generated tokens.

Table 4: Real-prompt `entropy_exit` performance (Q4_K_M, steps=16, threads=12).

	B=64		B=256		
Prompt	**tok/s**	**Steps**	**tok/s**	**Steps**	**Δ**
Capital of France?	9.22	4	**15.60**	4	+69%
Translate to French	10.23	3	**21.78**	3	+113%
15 × 23 =?	11.49	3	11.45	5	−0.3%
Translate to Spanish	4.59	8	**7.17**	8	+56%
Python `is_prime`	2.53	15	3.12	17	+23%
Poem about ocean	2.33	17	3.10	17	+33%
Why sky is blue	2.21	17	3.18	17	+44%
List the planets	2.33	17	3.19	17	+37%

The pattern at B=64 is clear: easy prompts (factual, arithmetic, simple translation) converge in 3–4 steps with 4−6× speedup over `low_confidence`. Hard prompts use full steps with no speedup but no degradation.

At B=256, all prompts benefit from the larger generation buffer, with throughput gains of 23–113% on 7 of 8 prompts. The single exception (15 × 23) shows no change: entropy-exit uses 5 steps instead of 3, exactly offsetting the per-token amortization. This prompt-dependent variance

is inherent to adaptive scheduling—the model allocates more refinement steps when the longer output requires it.

The best result is 21.78 tok/s (French translation, 3 steps), and easy prompts average ∼15 tok/s at B=256—approximately 1.8× `llama.cpp`'s 8.51 tok/s.

6.5 Comparison with llama.cpp

Table 5 compares `diffuse-cpp` with `llama.cpp` on the same hardware. We emphasize that this compares different models (LLaDA-8B vs Llama-3-8B) and different paradigms, not identical systems.

Table 5: Comparison with `llama.cpp` (both Q4_K_M, 12 threads, same hardware).

Scenario	**diffuse-cpp** (B=64)	**diffuse-cpp** (B=256)	**llama.cpp**
Easy prompts (EE)	9–11 tok/s	**11–22 tok/s**	8.51 tok/s
Medium prompts (EE)	2.5–4.6 tok/s	3.1–7.2 tok/s	8.51 tok/s
Hard prompts (EE)	2.2–2.3 tok/s	3.1–3.2 tok/s	8.51 tok/s
Thread scaling (1→12)	7.4×	7.4×	2.4×

With B=64, `diffuse-cpp` outperforms `llama.cpp` only on easy prompts (1.1–1.3×). With B=256, easy prompts reach 11–22 tok/s (1.3–2.6× `llama.cpp`), and hard prompts narrow the gap from 3.7× slower to 2.7× slower. The thread scaling trends further favor diffusion on many-core machines.

Figure 3 shows the combined effect of quantization and entropy-exit scheduling.

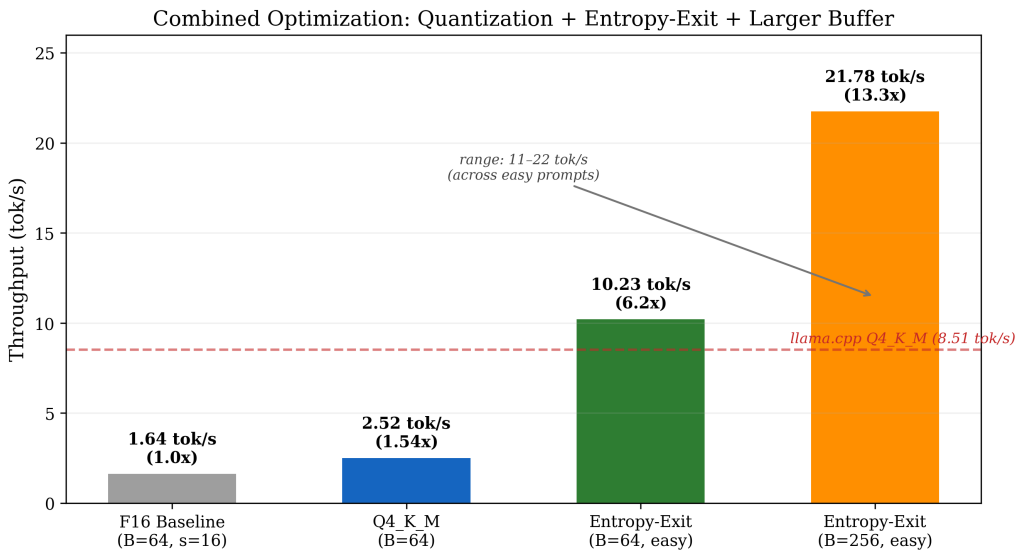

Figure 3: Combined optimization: from F16 baseline (1.64 tok/s) through quantization (Q4_K_M, 1.54×), entropy-exit on easy prompts at B=64 (6.2×), and B=256 generation (13.3× peak, range 11–22 tok/s across easy prompts). The dashed line shows `llama.cpp` for reference.

6.6 Sequence Length Scaling

Table 6 shows the effect of increasing the generation buffer from 64 to 256 tokens (Q4_K_M, T=16 steps, 12 threads, real chat-formatted prompt).

Table 6: Sequence length scaling (Q4_K_M, steps=16, threads=12, 32-token prompt).

Scheduler	B=64	B=256	**Time ratio**	**ms/token**	**Improvement**
`low_confidence`	2.58 tok/s	3.18 tok/s	3.24×	388→314	−19%
`entropy_exit`	13.4 tok/s	17.1 tok/s	3.15×	74.5→58.6	−21%

Generating 4× more tokens increases total wall-clock time by only 3.2×, yielding a 20% reduction in per-token cost. This sub-linear scaling confirms the theoretical prediction from Equation 2: larger B increases arithmetic intensity, amortizing fixed overhead (weight loading, softmax over vocabulary, memory allocation) across more useful tokens.

The practical implication is significant: `entropy_exit` with B=256 reaches **11–22 tok/s** on real prompts (Table 4)—up to 2.6× the throughput of `llama.cpp` (8.51 tok/s) on the same hardware. This is the configuration where diffusion's matrix-matrix advantage becomes most pronounced, and it corresponds to the sequence lengths users actually need in production (responses of 200+ tokens are typical for chatbot, code generation, and translation tasks).

7 Limitations

We are transparent about the limitations of this work.

Model quality. LLaDA-8B produces noticeably lower-quality outputs than Llama-3-8B. We observed repetitions ("the and and molecules"), incomplete outputs on code prompts, and mediocre translations. The throughput comparison is between paradigms, not quality-equivalent models. A fair comparison would require a diffusion model trained to match Llama-3-8B quality, which does not yet exist.

Different models. We compare LLaDA-8B (diffusion) against Llama-3-8B (autoregressive). These share the same parameter count and Llama backbone architecture but differ in training procedure, data, and generation mechanism. The comparison demonstrates the *computational* regime inversion, not a head-to-head model quality contest.

Prior art on scheduling. Entropy-based scheduling is not novel. Prophet [Li et al., 2025], EAGS [Koh et al., 2024], and Fast-dLLM [Wu et al., 2025] proposed related mechanisms. Our contribution is the implementation in a CPU-optimized engine and the demonstration that adaptive scheduling is particularly impactful in the compute-bound regime.

Single hardware platform. All benchmarks were conducted on a single AMD EPYC system. Generalization to Intel, ARM, Apple Silicon, or consumer-grade CPUs requires further validation. The regime inversion argument is architecture-independent, but the crossover point varies with the bandwidth-to-compute ratio.

Prompt coverage. Real-prompt evaluation used 8 prompts. While the PyTorch benchmark covered 42 prompts in 12 categories, comprehensive evaluation across thousands of diverse prompts remains future work.

8 Implications and Future Work

Democratizing inference. If diffusion models perform better on commodity CPUs, the implications are significant. A $200 server CPU with 32–64 cores could provide competitive LLM inference without any GPU. This eliminates the hardware supply chain bottleneck and enables deployment in resource-constrained environments.

AR-to-diffusion conversion. Recent work shows that AR models can be converted to diffusion models via continued pre-training with masking [Nie et al., 2025]. We estimate that LoRA fine-tuning for this conversion could cost as little as $250 in compute, creating a practical pipeline: take any AR model, fine-tune for diffusion, convert to GGUF, and deploy on CPU with `diffuse-cpp`.

Multi-hardware validation. A community hackathon or Kaggle competition could validate the regime inversion across diverse hardware: Intel Xeon, AMD Threadripper, Apple M-series, ARM server chips. We predict that the advantage of diffusion will increase with core count and decrease with memory bandwidth.

Engine optimizations. Several optimizations remain unexplored: bidirectional Flash Attention [Dao et al., 2022] adapted for non-causal masks, batched inference for serving workloads, generation buffers beyond 256 tokens, and support for additional architectures (SEDD, MDLM).

Better diffusion models. The regime inversion becomes practically relevant when dLLM quality matches AR models. Investment in larger, better-trained diffusion models (analogous to the Llama series) would enable the computational advantages demonstrated here to translate into real-world deployment wins.

9 Conclusion

The field has assumed that diffusion language models are inherently slower than autoregressive models for inference. This assumption is correct on GPUs, where massive memory bandwidth compensates for AR's sequential memory access pattern. On commodity CPUs, however, the computational regime inverts: AR inference hits a hard bandwidth ceiling while diffusion inference scales with available compute.

We demonstrated this empirically with `diffuse-cpp`, the first C++ inference engine for diffusion LLMs. On an AMD EPYC 12-core CPU, thread scaling reaches 7.4× for diffusion versus 2.4× for AR. With Q4_K_M quantization, entropy-exit scheduling, and 256-token generation, `diffuse-cpp` achieves 11–22 tok/s on real prompts—up to 2.6× faster than `llama.cpp`'s 8.51 tok/s on the same hardware. Increasing the generation buffer from 64 to 256 tokens reduces per-token cost by 20%, confirming that diffusion's advantage amplifies with sequence length.

The contribution is not a claim that diffusion is universally faster. It is the identification and empirical validation of a hardware-dependent regime inversion, and the open-source tools to exploit it. As CPU core counts increase and diffusion model quality improves, this regime may become the dominant path to GPU-free LLM inference.

The code, models, benchmark data, and this paper are publicly available under open licenses.

Acknowledgments

This work was inspired by the GGML library and llama.cpp [Gerganov et al., 2023]. The entropy-exit scheduler builds on ideas from Prophet [Li et al., 2025] and the entropy-adaptive scheduling literature [Koh et al., 2024, Wu et al., 2025]. Figures 1–3 were generated with Matplotlib.

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A Regime Inversion Diagram

Figure 4 provides a visual summary of the memory-compute matching argument from Section 3.

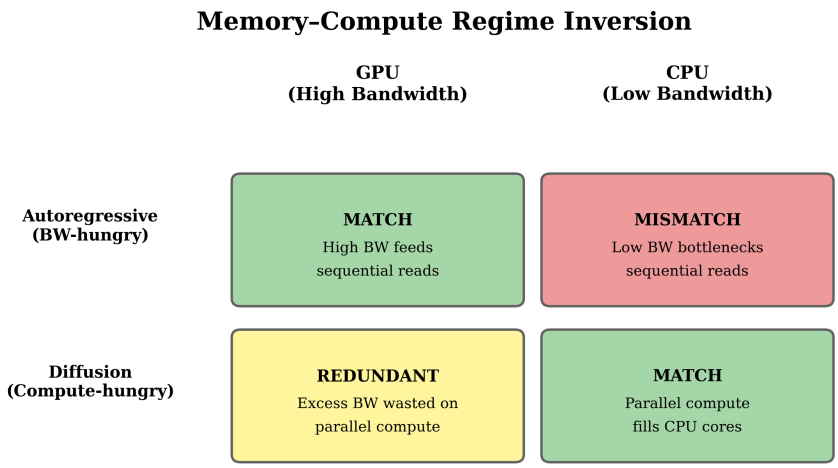

Figure 4: The 2×2 matching matrix. Green cells indicate favorable hardware-workload matching; red cells indicate bottlenecks. On GPU, AR is well-matched; on CPU, diffusion is well-matched.